

Asia before Colonial Times

Francis Bond

based on slides by František Kratochvíl

2026

Overview

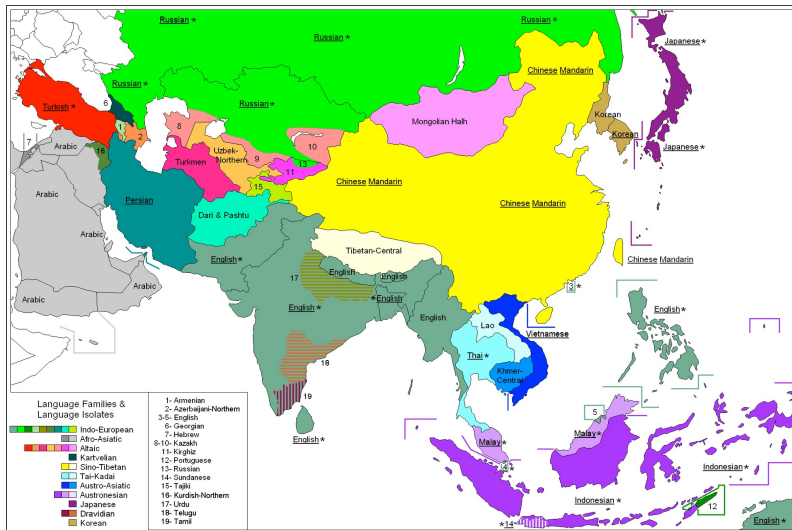
- 1 Language Families of Asia
- 2 South Asia
- 3 Geography and Climate
- 4 Crops and Domestication
- 5 Contact, Trade and Writing
- 6 Lexical Borrowing
- 7 Conclusion

The region in numbers

- From the Indian subcontinent to the Indonesian archipelago:
 - about **2,000 languages** — roughly **30%** of the 7,000 spoken on the planet
 - about **one third of humanity**
- South Asia alone: **1.8 billion** people in eight countries, speaking some **664** languages
- Eight or so phyla: Austroasiatic, Austronesian, Dravidian, Hmong-Mien, Indo-Aryan, Sino-Tibetan, Tai-Kadai, and several Papuan families
- Plus isolates with no known relatives: **Burushaski** (N. Pakistan), **Nihali** (central-west India), **Kusunda** (western Nepal)

Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020; Hammarström et al. 2018; Eberhard et al. 2019

Major languages of Asia



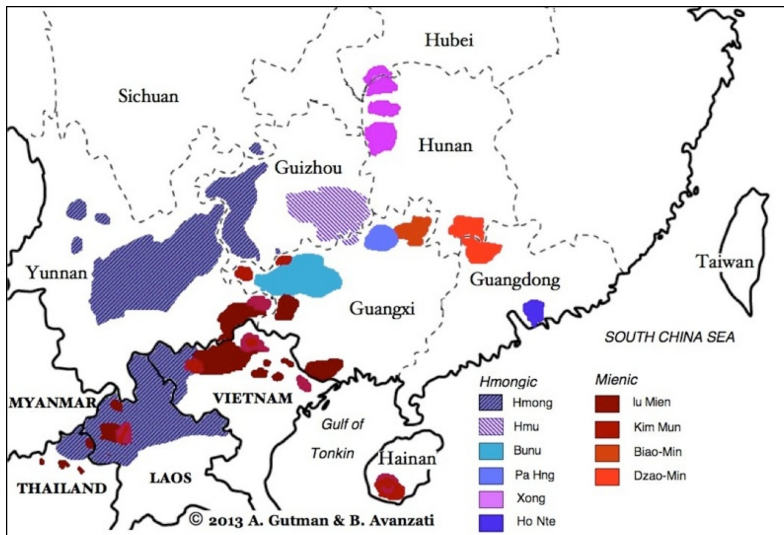
Austro-Asiatic family



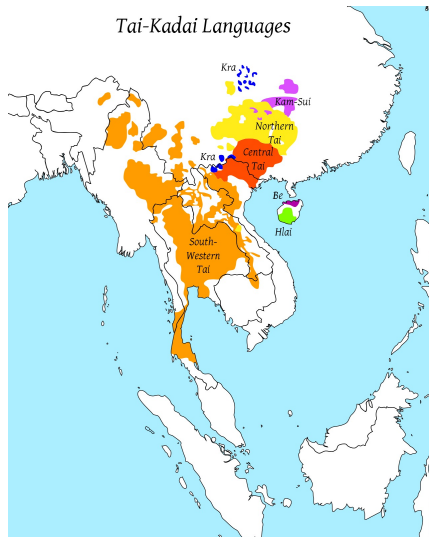
Hmong-Mien family



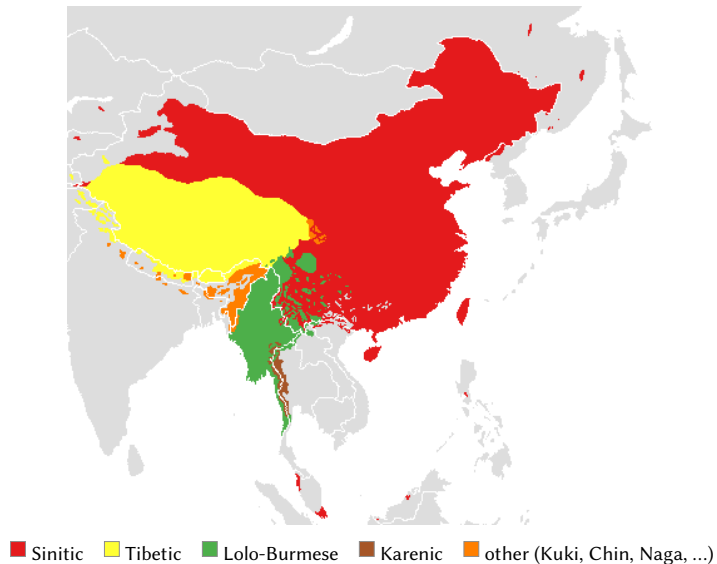
Hmong-Mien family

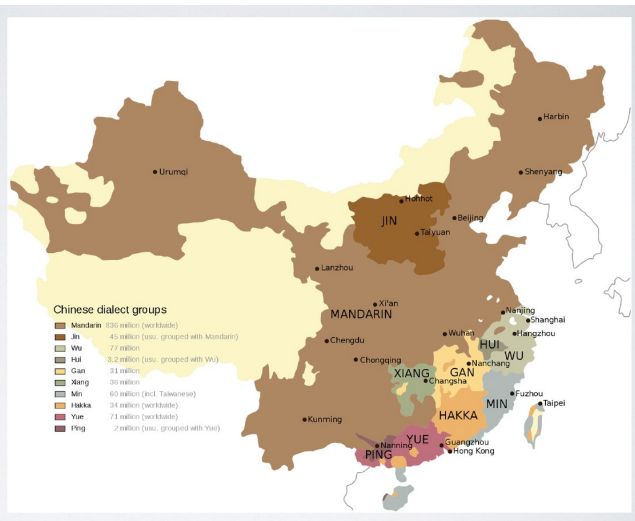


Tai-Kadai family (probably a branch of Austronesian)

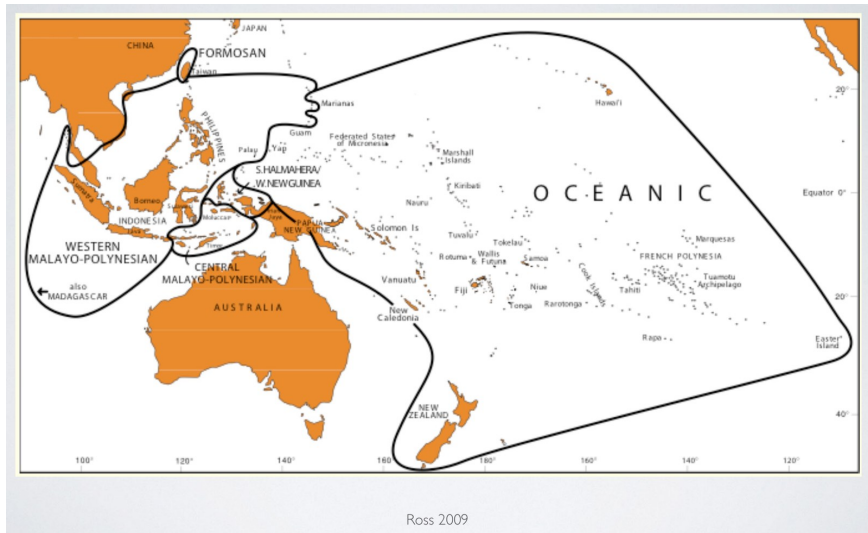


Sino-Tibetan family





The integrity of the Austronesian language family



Who was in South Asia first?

- Five families, plus three isolates:
 - **Austroasiatic** (Munda, Khasic), **Dravidian**, **Indo-European** (Indo-Aryan, Iranian, Nuristani), **Sino-Tibetan** (Tibeto-Burman), **Tai-Kadai**
- **Munda** speakers predate the Indo-Aryan migration. Place names in the Dravidian Kurukh- and Malto-speaking regions are of Munda origin
- **Dravidian** likely is native to the region it is spoken in (autochthonous), and Proto-Dravidian may have been the language of the Indus Civilization. Non-Indo-Aryan place names (toponyms) survive in northern India
- The Khasi and Jaintia Hills languages look like a *later* arrival from the east — their features are MSEA-like, unlike Munda

Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 19–21

Dating the Indo-Aryan arrival from a text

- The **R̥gveda** (1500-1000 BCE) makes *no reference to iron* — so it predates c. 1000 BCE, when iron appears in South Asia
- It refers to the cities of the Indus Valley Civilization only as *ruins* — so it postdates their collapse around 1900 BCE
- That brackets both the text and the Aryan migration at roughly **1500 BCE**
- Dravidian loanwords suggest early contact in Vedic Sanskrit: *ulūkhala*- ‘mortar’, *kuṇḍa* ‘pit’, *khāla*- ‘threshing floor’, *kāṇa* ‘one-eyed’, *mayūra* ‘peacock’
- ! *What a text does not mention can date it*

Witzel 2001; Emeneau 1954; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 20, 29

Assam: a Tai kingdom that left an Indo-Aryan language

- In the 13th century a tribe of Shans crossed the Patkai range and founded a kingdom that lasted 600 years. Their language, **Ahom**, gives **Assam** its name
- Ahom is now dead, but modern **Assamese** — an Indo-Aryan language — carries its imprint:
 - it has *lost* the dental ~ retroflex contrast in stops, unusual for Indo-Aryan, though the orthography still writes both
 - it has an extensive *numeral classifier* system, common in MSEA but only rudimentary elsewhere in Indo-Aryan
- River names preserve an older layer still: Tai *nam* ‘water’ in the Namphuk, and a *di/ti* formative in the Dehing, Dikhu, Disang, Tizü and Tiho — from Proto-Tibeto-Burman **ti(y)* ‘water’

Gait 1906; Benedict 1972; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 21–22

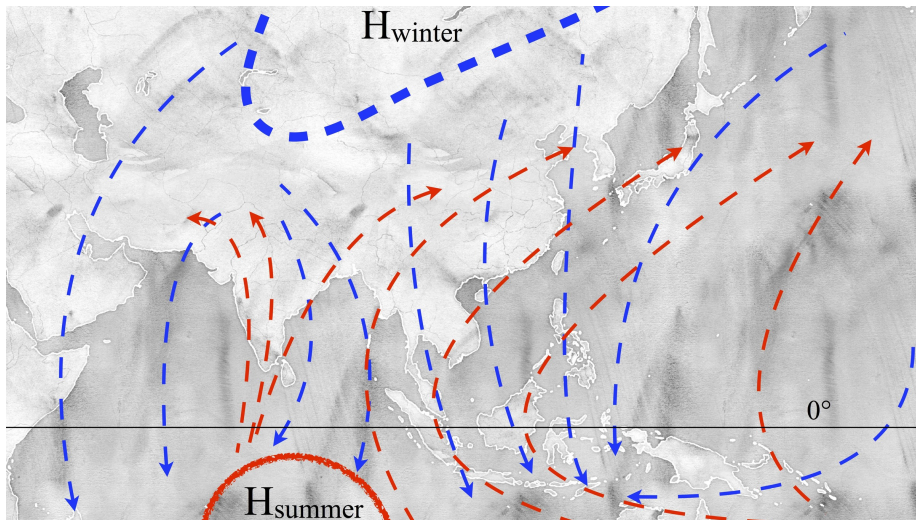
Relief of East and Southeast Asia



Relief of mainland Southeast Asia



Monsoon patterns

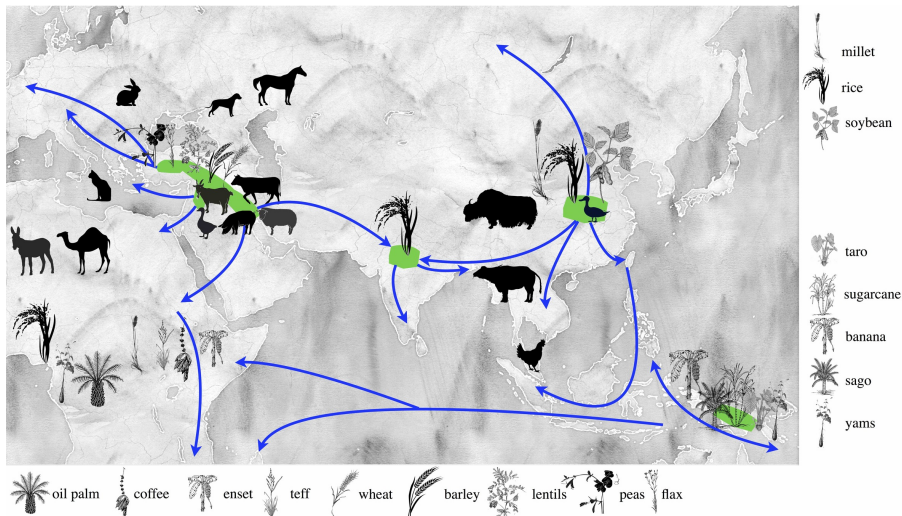


Zomia: the uplands as refuge

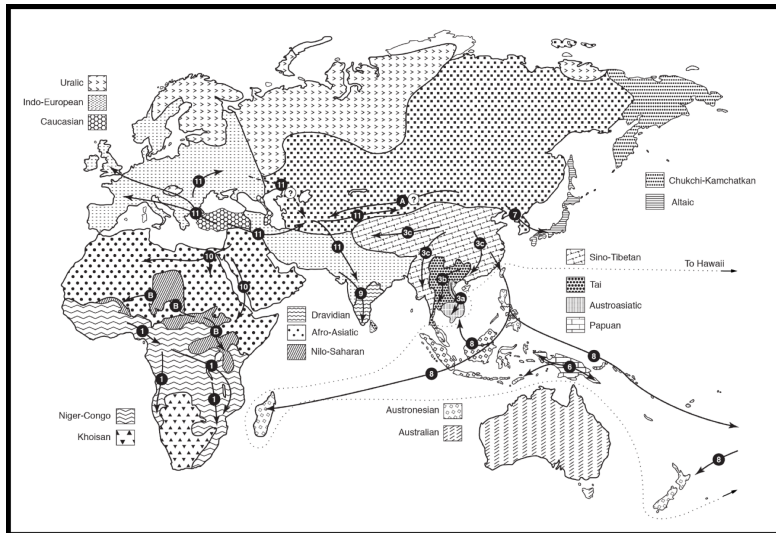
- Scott (2009) calls the extensive uplands of Southeast Asia and beyond **Zomia**: historically a refuge zone for minorities fleeing *corvée* (intermittent forced unpaid) labour and taxation imposed by the lowland padi states
- In MSEA the main booty of a victorious campaign was *manpower*. The Thai expression is *kwà:t mu:ang*, literally ‘sweep city’
- Whole communities were carried off to Tai and Burmese padi states to work the wet rice fields — and concentrated labour encourages a shift to the language of the rulers
- Lowlands consolidate into few big languages, uplands preserve many small ones

Scott 2009; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 22, 42

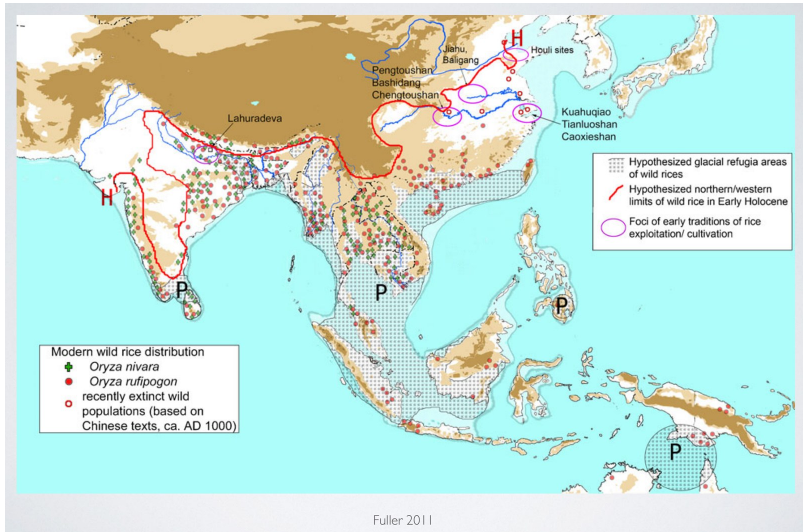
Cultural crops



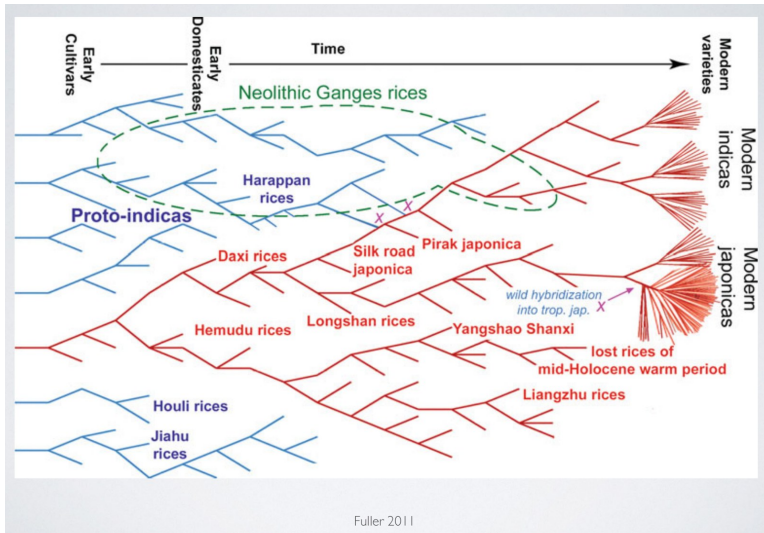
Cultural crops and language family expansions



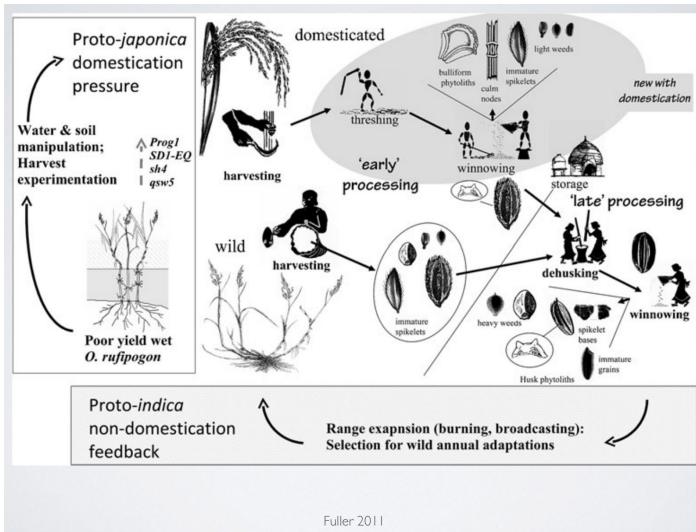
Last glacial period sea levels and natural refugia of wild rice



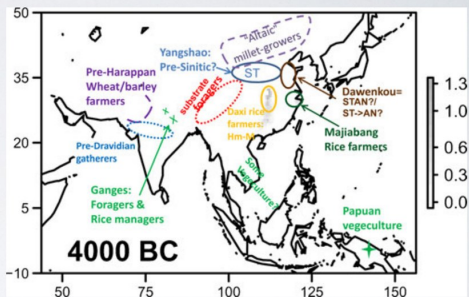
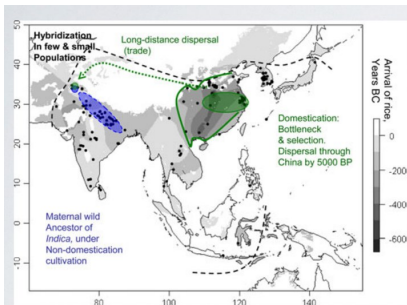
Genetic diversity of rice



Domestication pressures on rice

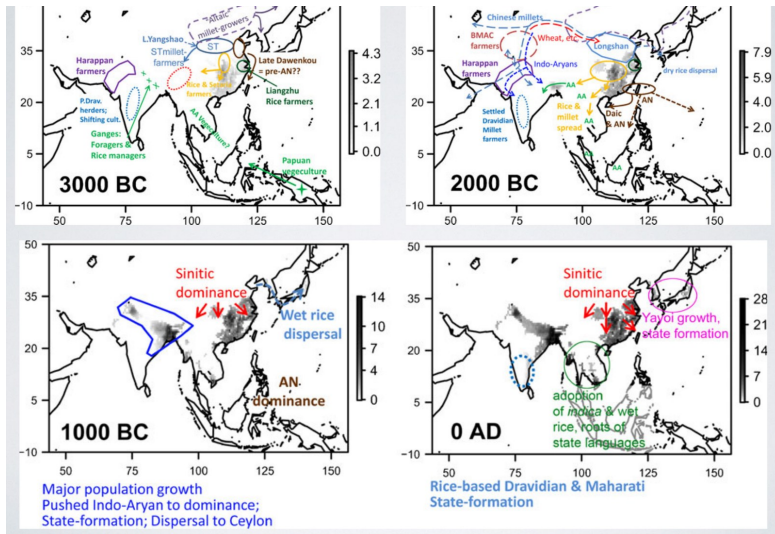


Spreading of rice hybrids

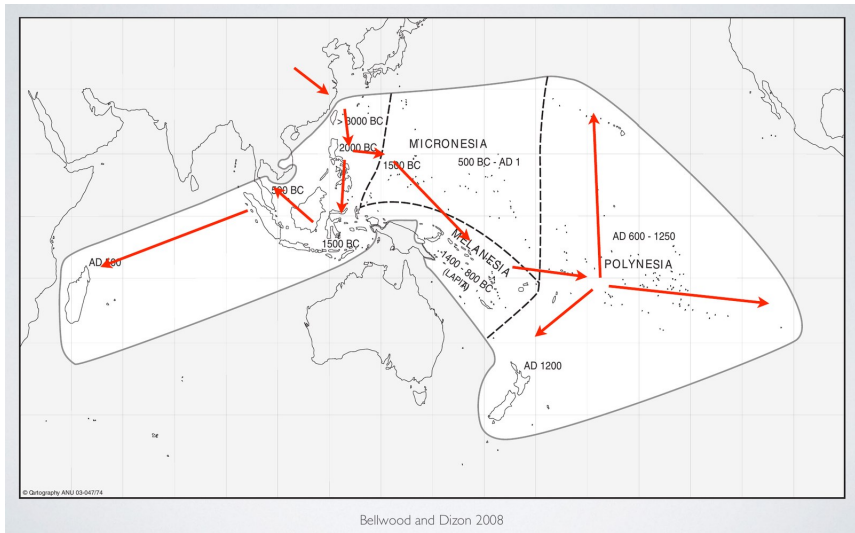


Fuller 2011

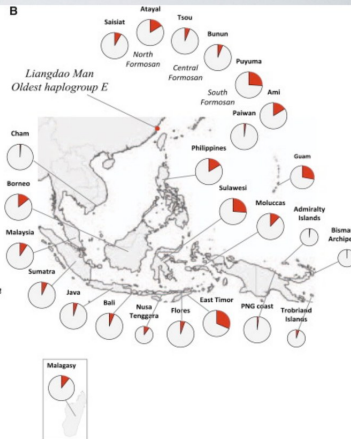
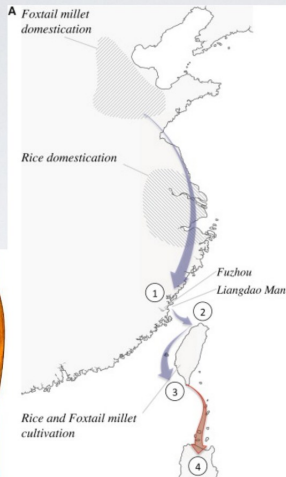
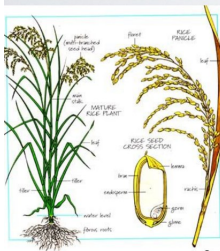
Spreading of rice hybrids



Reconstruction of Austronesian expansion



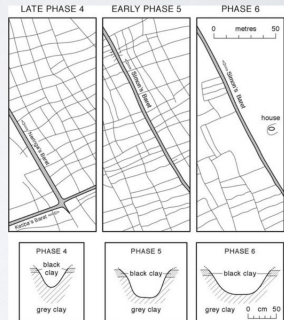
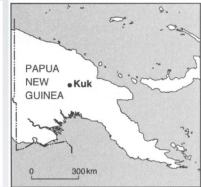
Millets



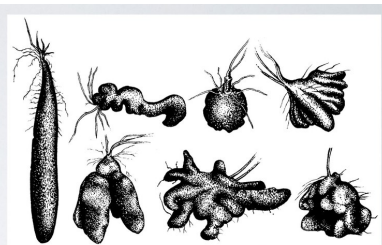
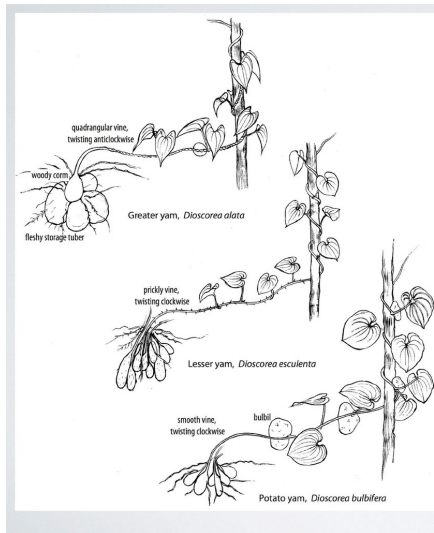
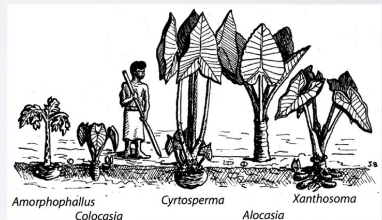
Suggested Migration Route for Early Austronesians Into and Out of Taiwan and the Worldwide Distribution of Haplogroup E1 (A) Geographic regions in China of foxtail millet domestication (source: Ko et al. 2014)

Taro domestication

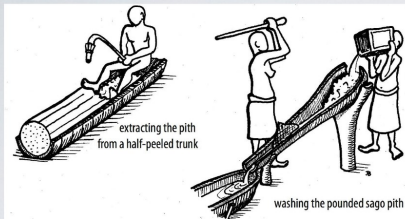
Multidisciplinary investigations at Kuk Swamp in the Highlands of Papua New Guinea show that agriculture arose independently in New Guinea by at least 6950 to 6440 calibrated years before the present (cal yr B.P.). Plant exploitation and some cultivation occurred on the wetland margin at 10,220 to 9910 cal yr B.P. (phase 1), mounding cultivation began by 6950 to 6440 cal yr B.P. (phase 2), and ditched cultivation began by 4350 to 3980 cal yr B.P. (phase 3). Clearance of lower montane rainforests began in the early Holocene, with modification to grassland at 6950 to 6440 cal yr B.P. Taro (*Colocasia esculenta*) was utilized in the early Holocene, and bananas (*Musa* spp.) were intensively cultivated by at least 6950 to 6440 cal yr B.P.



New Guinean domestications: tubers

Yams (*Dioscorea alata*)Taro (*Araceae*) and *Amorphophallus*

New Guinean domestications: sago



New Guinean domestications: banana



Over 100 new accessions of wild and cultivated bananas were obtained from a wide geographic region including West New Britain, East New Britain, New Ireland, Western Highlands, East Sepik, Madang and Milne Bay



New Guinean domestications: sugar cane



Indosphere and Sinosphere

- India and China are large adjacent states that have always exerted considerable sway over the interface area of Southeast Asia
- Matisoff (1991) coined **Indosphere** and **Sinosphere** for their overlapping domains of cultural and linguistic influence
- Blust's four periods of influence: **(i) Indian, (ii) Chinese, (iii) Islamic, (iv) European**
- Chinese contact with Southeast Asia was *commercial*: it did not spread Chinese literacy southward, as it did to Korea, Japan and northern Vietnam
- ? Which sphere is a given language in? Often both, in different parts of the lexicon

Matisoff 1991; Blust 2009; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 27, 31

Three degrees of contact

- From weakest to strongest:
- **Lexical borrowing** — a word is transferred from one language to another. Religious terms from Hinduism, Buddhism and Islam diffused across the whole area this way
- **Structural borrowing / convergence** — the organising principles of two languages align, in phonology, in word order, in pragmatics. Bilingual, cohabiting speakers. (The particle *lah* in Singapore Colloquial English, Malay and Chinese.)
- **Language shift** — the subjugated community gives up its language for the dominant one. The substrate survives in place names and specialist vocabulary
- Shift is now happening across the whole region in favour of national languages, and is expected to reduce diversity sharply this century

Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 28–29

Three contact zones

- **The Indian subcontinent** — Indo-Aryan meets Dravidian. The South Asian areal features (dental ~ retroflex contrast, suffixing morphology, verb-final order, dative subjects) may largely be a contact outcome
- **Mainland Southeast Asia** — five families, and *the greatest extent of linguistic convergence on the planet* (Enfield 2011). A single grammatical template can replicate the same sentence in unrelated languages; often only the words differ
- **Around New Guinea** — Austronesian meets Papuan, giving the East Nusantara area. Both sides underwent structural simplification
- Expanding agriculturists usually absorbed hunter-gatherers — but not where they met other food producers: the **Neolithic standoff** of eastern Indonesia

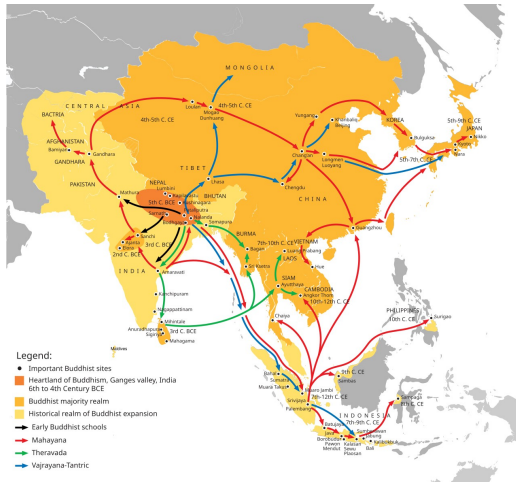
Bisang 1996; Klammer 2004, 2012; Lansing et al. 2011; Enfield 2011

Malay: the lingua franca for two millennia

- Malay was the de facto **lingua franca of island Southeast Asia for almost two thousand years**, documented in stone inscriptions from the 7th century CE
- It was *not* displaced by Javanese, Chinese, Arabic, Portuguese or Dutch — **only by English, around the time of the Second World War**
- It carried the prestige of the Hindu, Buddhist and Islamic periods, and was the main conduit for Islam
- *masuk Melayu* ‘enter Malay’ meant both converting to Islam and shifting to the Malay language
- Malay was also the *intermediary* for Sanskrit, Tamil, Persian and Arabic loans across the region — which is why so many charts later in this lecture run through Malay

Adelaar & Prentice 1996; Blust 2009; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 33–34

The spread of Buddhism



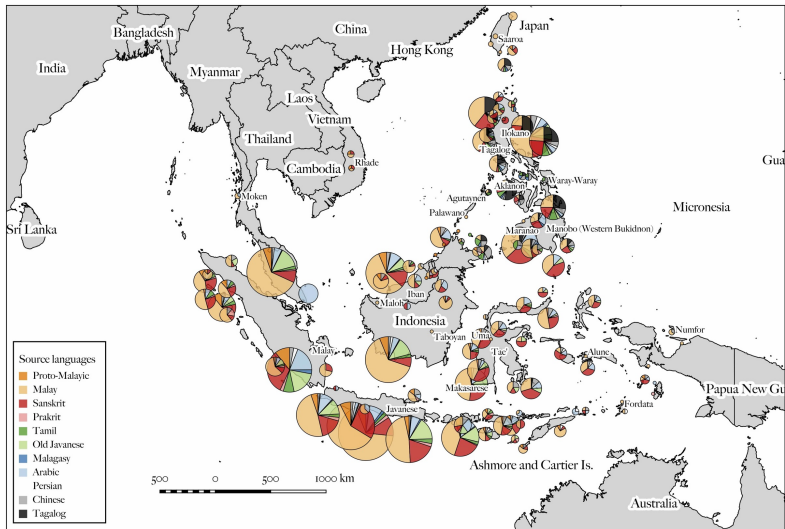
Map by Gunawan Kartapranata, via Wikimedia Commons (*Buddhist Expansion.svg*), CC BY-SA 3.0

Vietnamese: the one script imposed by conquest

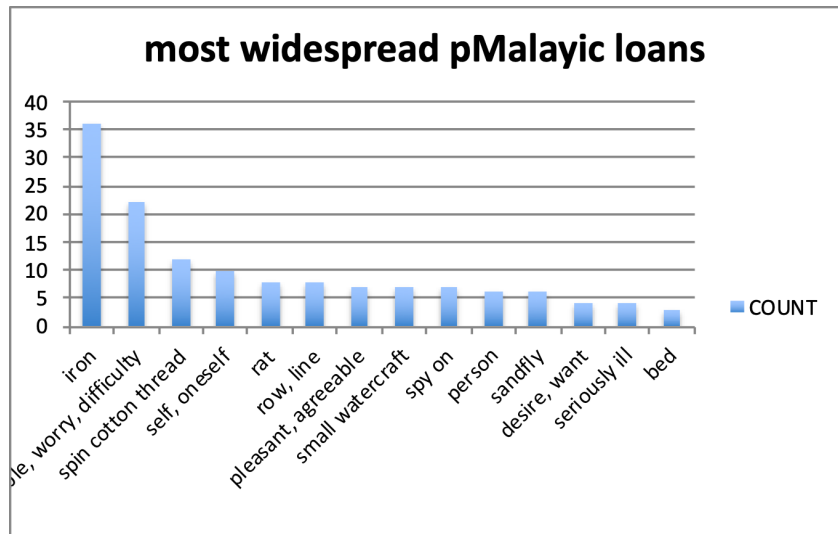
- Writing reached MSEA and ISEA with religious texts, in **Brāhmī-based abugidas** from South India. Burmese, Khmer, Lao, Mon, Shan and Thai — essentially every Theravada Buddhist language — use them
- **Vietnamese is the exception:** the only Austroasiatic language of MSEA that did not use an Indic-derived script, and the only language of the region to have a writing system *imposed by a conquering power*
- Classical Chinese logographs after the Han invasion of 111 BCE, then **chữ Nôm**, with characters added for what Chinese could not write
- 17th-century Catholic missionaries devised a Roman script with diacritics for the tones that had developed under Sinitic domination; the French administration made it official in the early 20th century

Court 1996; Nguyễn 1996; Coupe & Kratochvíl 2020: 31, 34

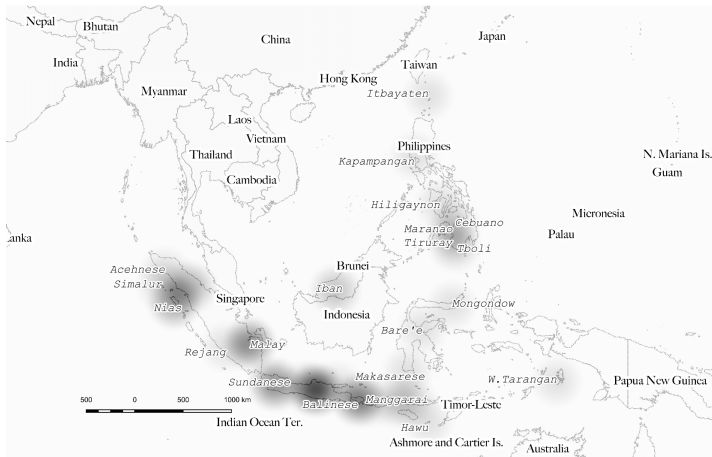
Lexical borrowing in Austronesian



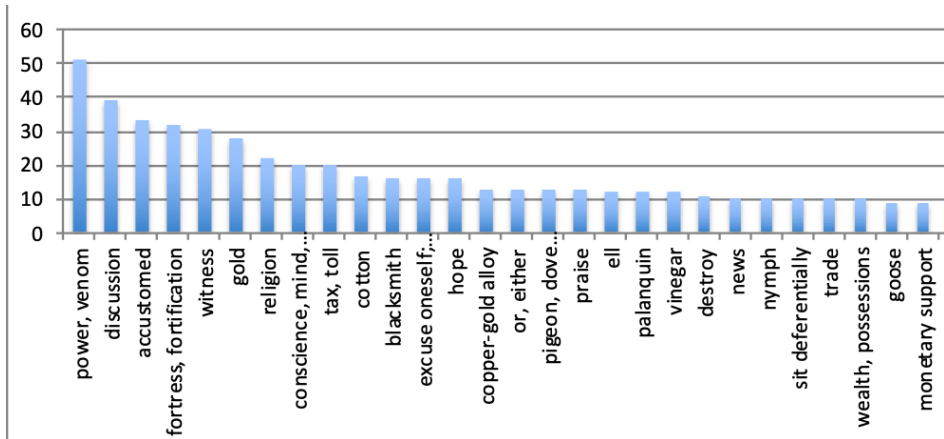
Malayic loanwords



Indic loanwords



Most common Sanskrit loans in languages of SE Asia



Indic loanwords — the 28 most widespread; the tail of another 29 is omitted

Indian Sub-continent
southern northern

Tamil ஸ்ரீவோ ரக்ஷது கீர்வாணபாஷாரஸாஸ்வாததத்பரத்

Southeast Asia

Lentore *American Journal of Nursing*

Image by Abhay Agarwal, via Wikimedia Commons (*Phrase sanskrit.png*), CC BY-SA 3.0

Grantha and Pallava scripts

Phoenician	Aramaic	Value	Brahmi	Value
𐤀	𐤁	*	𑀀	a
𐤂	𐤃	b [b]	𑀁	ba
𐤄	𐤅	g [g]	𑀂	ga
𐤆	𐤇	d [d]	𑀃	dha
𐤈	𐤉	h [h], M.L.	𑀄	ha
𐤊	𐤋	w [w], M.L.	𑀅	va
𐤌	𐤍	z [z]	𑀆	ja
𐤏	𐤐	h [h]	𑀇	gha
𐤑	𐤒	t [t]	𑀈	tha
𐤔	𐤕	y [j], M.L.	𑀉	ya
𐤖	𐤗	k [k]	𑀊	ka
𐤙	𐤚	l [l]	𑀋	la
𐤛	𐤜	m [m]	𑀌	ma
𐤞	𐤟	n [n]	𑀍	na
𐤡	𐤢	s [s]	𑀎	sa
𐤤	𐤥	' [ʔ], M.L.	𑀏	e
𐤨	𐤩	p [p]	𑀐	pa
𐤬	𐤭	ś [ʃ]	𑀑	ca
𐤱	𐤲	q [q]	𑀒	kha
𐤴	𐤵	r [r]	𑀓	ra
𐤸	𐤹	ś [ʃ]	𑀔	śa
𐤾	𐤿	t [t]	𑀕	ta

Indian scripts are
derived from Greco-
Phoenitian alphabeth

ீ ு ூ ௃ ௄
 k kh g gh ṅ
 ௅ ெ ே ை ௉
 c ch j jh ñ
 ொ ோ ௌ ் ௎
 ṭ ṭh ḍ ḍh ṇ
 ௐ ௑ ௒ ௓ ௔
 t th d dh n
 ௕ ௖ ௗ ௘ ௙
 p ph b bh m
 ௚ ௛ ௜ ௝ ௞
 y r l v ḷ
 ௟ ௠ ௡ ௢ ௣
 ś ṣ s h
 ௤ ௥ ௦ ௧ ௨ ௩
 a ā i ī u ū
 ௪ ௫ ௬ ௭
 ṛ ṛī ḷ ḷī
 ௮ ௯ ௰ ௱
 e ai o au
 ௲ ௳
 m ḥ
 PALLAVA
 SCRIPT

Austronesian scripts derived from Indian

Kawi
(700-1500 AD)

Specimen of an Ancient Javanese Inscription.

Javanese
(still in use)

Alphabets not arranged according to the Donanagiri classification.
MODERN JAVANESE ALPHABET.
Open Consonants, which the Vowels a or o are always understood to follow.

ho	no	cho	ro	ko	do	lo	so	wo	lo	po	do	jo	yo	nyo	mo	go	bo	to	ngo
ha	na	ca	ra	ka	da	la	sa	wa	la	pa	da	ja	ya	nya	ma	ga	ba	ta	nga

Consonants following Consonants, without a Vowel intervening.

ho	no	cho	ko	do	to	so	lo	po	do	jo	nyo	mo	bo	to
ha	na	ca	ka	da	ta	sa	la	pa	da	ja	ya	ma	ba	ta

Contractions of Consonants.

h	c	r	medial y	ng	marks the termination of a word in a consonant
h	c	r	y	ng	

Great Letters used on occasions of Ceremony

ho	no	cho	ro	ko	do	lo	so	wo	lo	po	do	jo	yo	nyo	mo	go	bo	to	ngo
ha	na	ca	ra	ka	da	la	sa	wa	la	pa	da	ja	ya	nya	ma	ga	ba	ta	nga

Vowels and orthographical marks

a	i	u	e	ai	o
a	i	u	e	ai	o

Beginning of a new sentence.

Beginning of a stanza.

Period.

Balinese
(still in use)

ᮊ	ᮃ	ᮄ	ᮅ	ᮆ
Hā	Nā	Cā	Rā	Kā
ᮇ	ᮈ	ᮉ	ᮊ	ᮋ
Dā	Tā	Sā	Wā	Lā
ᮌ	ᮍ	ᮎ	ᮏ	ᮐ
Mā	Gā	Bā	Ngā	
ᮑ	ᮒ	ᮓ	ᮔ	ᮕ
Pā	Jā	Yā	Nyā	

Cham
(still used)

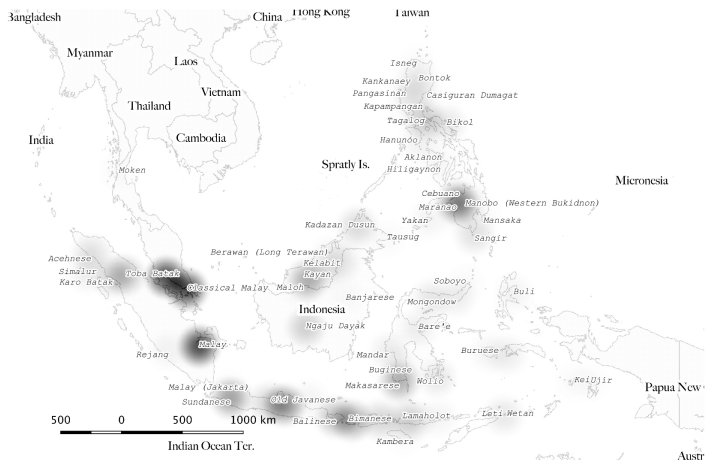
Consonants

ᮊ	ᮃ	ᮄ	ᮅ	ᮆ	ᮇ	ᮈ	ᮉ	ᮊ	ᮋ	ᮌ	ᮍ	ᮎ	ᮏ	ᮐ	ᮑ	ᮒ	ᮓ	ᮔ	ᮕ
ka	kha	ga	gha	ngue	nga	cha	chha	ja	jha	nhue	nha	nhā							
ᮖ	ᮗ	ᮘ	ᮙ	ᮚ	ᮛ	ᮜ	ᮝ	ᮞ	ᮟ	ᮠ	ᮡ	ᮢ	ᮣ	ᮤ	ᮥ	ᮦ	ᮧ	ᮨ	ᮩ
ta	tha	da	dha	nue	na	dda	pa	ppa	pha	ba	bha	mue	ma						
᮪	᮫	ᮬ	ᮭ	ᮮ	ᮯ	᮰	᮱	᮲	᮳	᮴	᮵	᮶	᮷	᮸	᮹	ᮺ	ᮻ	ᮼ	ᮽ
bba	ya	ra	la	va	ssa	sa	ya												

Vowels

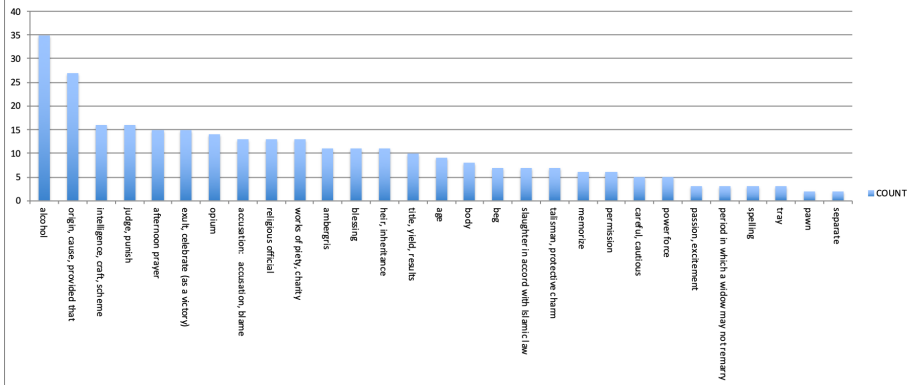
ᮊ	ᮃ	ᮄ	ᮅ	ᮆ	ᮇ	ᮈ	ᮉ	ᮊ	ᮋ	ᮌ	ᮍ	ᮎ	ᮏ	ᮐ	ᮑ	ᮒ	ᮓ	ᮔ	ᮕ
a	i	u	e	ai	o	a	i	li	ei	u	uu	oeu	oe	ooe	e				
ᮖ	ᮗ	ᮘ	ᮙ	ᮚ	ᮛ	ᮜ	ᮝ	ᮞ	ᮟ	ᮠ	ᮡ	ᮢ	ᮣ	ᮤ	ᮥ	ᮦ	ᮧ	ᮨ	ᮩ
ee	o	oo	ai	au	ue	ue													

Arabic loanwords

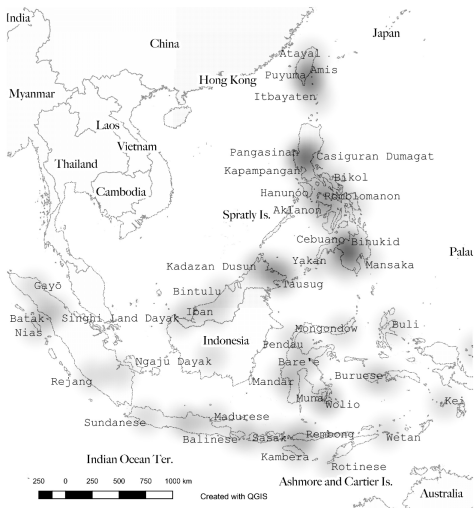


Arabic loanwords

most frequent Arabic loans in AN languages of SEAsia

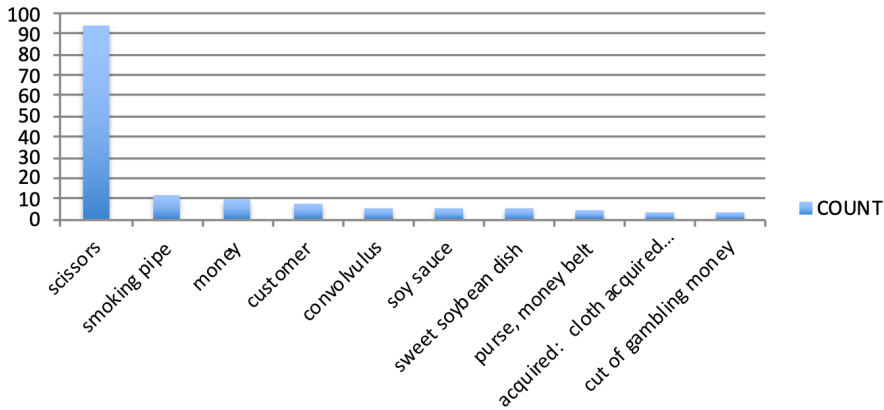


Chinese loanwords



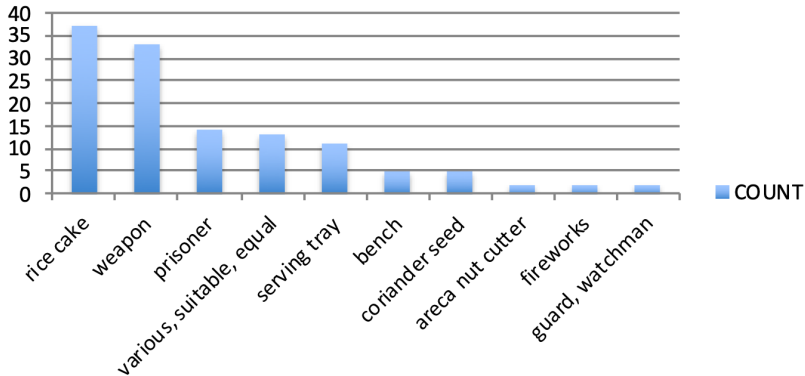
Chinese loanwords

Most widespread Chinese loans



Tamil loanwords

Most common Tamil loans in languages of SEAsia



Wanderwörter

- A **Wanderwort** is a word that has travelled far beyond the family it started in, passed from language to language along a trade route rather than inherited
- They are typically *acculturation terms*: trade goods, ritual objects, new technologies. Few in number, but geographically enormous
- They are a nuisance for the comparative method — they look like cognates but are not, and they can make unrelated languages look related
- Ones you already know: *tea* (Min *tê* by sea, Mandarin *chá* by land), *sugar*, *ginger*, *orange*
- In SEA, Malay was the *vehicle* for such words — Sanskrit, Tamil, Persian and Arabic loans all rode it

Haynie et al. 2014

Wanderwörter in Australian languages



Left: which languages share loans, drawn as a network. **Right:** the **pearlshell** trade routes out of the Kimberley coast. The two maps have the same shape. Malay and Makassarese were lingua francas on this coast before the Europeans, and some Malay loans reach Arnhem Land.

Haynie et al. 2014, figs. 4–5; trade routes after Stanton 1994

Asia before colonial times

- The region is bounded by the Arabian Sea and Indian Ocean, the Pacific, and the Himalaya — and governed throughout by the **monsoon**, which set what could be grown, when ships could sail, and so where people and languages went
- The modern language map is largely the map of **early agriculturists expanding**, channelled by obstacles (mountains, rainforest, sea) and gateways (river valleys, island chains, straits)
- Where they could not reach, diversity survived: **Zomia**, and the Papuan – Austronesian standoff in the east
- Contact has been *continuous and multidirectional* for millennia — Indic, Sinitic, Arabic, Malay — leaving loanwords, converged grammars, scripts, and whole languages abandoned
- By the start of our era the region was already linked to the Arabic and Sinitic worlds, with Malay its lingua franca

Context is important

... the European colonial powers ... contributed merely the latest layer of color on the linguistically and culturally rich canvas of the region.

Coupe & Kratochvíl (2020: 42)

- English is not the first lingua franca here, nor the first prestige language, nor the first source of loanwords. It is the most recent
- Malay held that role for almost two thousand years, and was displaced only around the Second World War
- The patterns we will see in Asian Englishes — borrowing, convergence, shift — are the same three processes, running again

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(the source of the rice maps and phylogenies above)

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- The figures are his, or are reproduced in his slides from the sources named on each slide and listed at the end.
- Rebuilt and expanded by me (FCB). Any errors introduced in the rebuilding are mine.
- The same ground is covered at chapter length, with references, in Coupe & Kratochvíl (2020), *Asia before English*.
- The Sanskrit-in-many-scripts figure is from Wikimedia Commons via Coupe & Kratochvíl (2020, Figure 2.5).
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